brick. Cf. esp. Fischer 1971: 46, 50. Cf. also Ball and Fischer 2019: 487–505. The Helmand–Sistan Project (HSP), directed by William Trousdale, undertook further documentation in the region during the 1970s, which Mitchell Allen is currently preparing for publication with W. Trousdale (M. Allen, pers. comm., February 2020).

39. See esp. Herberg 1982: 75, 78; Thomas 2018: 114–116.
40. Cf. Herberg 1982: 73; Ball 2002.
41. See esp. Herberg (1982: 71) for a typological juxtaposition of the various rectangular and cruciform plans of the structures he documented; this is supplemented by Ball's (2002: 29, 39) additional drawings of more complex plans of single towers and small structures.
42. Cf. the analyses of Danestama (Le Berre 1970), a Buddhist site possibly repurposed during twelfth century (Shansabani?); Darra-i Killigan (Lee 2006); and especially the pre-Islamic fort of Shahr-i Zuhak, characterized in broad architectural terms as "fit[ting] into the sizeable group of pre-Mongol fortresses of central Afghanistan … for example, Chehel Burj and Qaisar" (Baker and Allchin 1991: esp. 91 – these authors also had to rely on photographic documentation of Ghur's remains for comparative analysis). These complexes are discussed in Chapter 3. The extensive ramparts of Balkh (ancient Bactres) took full advantage of the site's rocky promontory as the base on top of which rammed-earth walls were erected (cf. Dagens, Le Berre and Schlumberger 1964). All of these sites' distance from Ghur – located as they were either within the ambit of the Bamiyan Valley and its offshoots, or far north in the plains of Balkh – indicate that there was a recognizable pan-regional architectural culture throughout most parts of Afghanistan.
43. I have relied on Szabo and Barfield's (1991: 48, 68) documentation of the areas of activity of the modern Taimanis and Firozkohis – both part of the Chahar Aymaq confederacy – indicating their possible informativeness for historical populations there. Additionally, P. A. Andrews' detailed study of tentage has posited historical data worthy of consideration, *viz.* the possible impacts of Mongol and later Timurid tent traditions on those of the Chahar Aymaq (cf. esp. King, vol. II, 1999: 155, 175, 363, 472, 682, figs. 6–8). Finally, the Afghan Boundary Commission's reports are extremely useful, providing a view on the populations at least one century in the past: e.g., on the Firozkohis and Taimanis as part of the Chahar Aymaq confederacy, see Maitland (1891: 107–141); Sing (1891: 161–204).
44. As intimated above, Szabo and Barfield's (1991) work on indigenous domestic architecture in Afghanistan has served as an invaluable resource here. See esp. Szabo and Barfield 1991: 29–31, 49–50, 59–61, 69–71. According to Captain R. E. Peacocke's (1887: 148) observations during the 1880s on behalf of the Afghan Boundary Commission, the Firozkohis considered their northern boundary to be at Piwar near Bala Murghab (modern Badghis Province). The Firozkohis' circuit of seasonal transhumance in the late nineteenth century was 130 miles east–west, and 45–80 miles in breadth, according to Maitland (1891: 112).
45. Cf. Barth (1961: 101–102) for a discussion of the comparable limitations of the nomadic–pastoralist Basseri of southern Iran.